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ARTICLE

"As Inaccessible as Ever": Unpacking Printed Native American Music as Primary Sources in Intellectual History and Popular Culture

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This article examines the trajectory of two Native American songs transcribed by French Jesuits in the seventeenth century, their subsequent inclusion in printed books in the eighteenth and nineteenth centuries, and their use by historians and entertainers in the twentieth century. The study focuses on how these songs, initially part of Native American oral and aural tradition, were transformed into primary-source evidence for historical research and racialized entertainment. This is an intellectual and cultural history that uses history-of-the-book and bibliographical methodologies to understand the discipline of history's formation in the academy. The article argues that converting these songs into written musical notation inherently altered their meaning and context. It highlights how transcribing music by ear involves subjective interpretation and the loss of crucial performative elements. Furthermore, reproducing these songs in printed form further distanced them from their original cultural context, making them susceptible to misinterpretation and appropriation. The fact that these changes occurred as history was founded as a discipline is crucial to understanding the argument. The study employs a multidisciplinary approach, drawing on historical documents, musical scores, and popular-culture materials. It examines the role of women scholars, such as Emma Helen Blair and Edna Kenton, in making these sources accessible to a broader audience through their work on primary-source anthologies. However, it also points out the unintended consequences of this accessibility, as the songs were increasingly decontextualized and used to perpetuate romanticized and inaccurate portrayals of Native American culture. The work of Blair and Kenton is central to the formation of history as a discipline in the academy, especially as they worked with and for men like Reuben Gold Thwaites and Frederick Jackson Turner. The research concludes that the transformation of these songs into historical sources and entertainment props reflects the complex relationship between scholarship, popular culture, and the representation of Native American culture in the twentieth century. It raises critical questions about authenticity, ownership, and access to Indigenous cultural expressions. Finally, this study emphasizes the importance of considering notated music as a historical primary source, acknowledging its limitations and potential for misinterpretation.

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Taming the savage beat

An illustration of a Native American man represents America on each record issued by the short-lived American Record Company (1904–6) (Figure 1).[1] He sits by a gramophone player and holds a disc in his right hand, four others strewn nearby. It is a stereotypical image: he is muscular and shirtless, with a headdress, blanket, moccasins, and arm cuffs. He clutches a ceremonial calumet pipe whose smoke encircles the phonograph, creating an ethereal tableau where the intoxicating melodies and smoky tendrils intertwine. The image is an example of how "Indianness" was conscripted to lend both indelible Americanness and exoticist fantasy to white commercial musical endeavors in the early twentieth century.

Anyone familiar with the history of US recording will recognize the iconographic resonance with Nipper the dog cocking his ear to the gramophone in RCA Victor's iconic logo, which had already been in circulation by the time the American Record Company was founded.[2] Like Nipper, the Indian man is a captivated consumer, enraptured by recorded sound. He is also being tamed: the partial quote "Music hath charms" used as the American Record Company's tagline hovering above him references the seventeenth-century English playwright William Congreve's famous quote, "Music hath charms to soothe the savage breast" from the play *The Mourning Bride* (1697).[3] The label is doubly coded with dehumanizing references, visually comparing the man to an obedient dog and textually to the long European tradition of believing that Indigenous people were "savages." But unlike Nipper, the nameless illustrated man is choosing among records: he is both a character—a record collector—and a caricature.

This article considers how white historians and self-styled experts turned to printed Native American songs as a source of historical evidence and racialized entertainment in the early twentieth century. In a period when racial and ethnic appropriation was the wellspring that fed entertainers of all races, white performers' racial masking was the norm rather than the exception. Indigenous peoples engaged in this form of appropriation as well.[4] For instance, Oglala Lakota men from Pine Ridge and

[1]The American Record Company (ARC) issued gramophone records from 1904 to 1906, until lawsuits for copyright infringement led to its demise.

[2]"His Master's Voice," the iconic image of a dog listening to a gramophone, was first painted by Francis Barraud in 1898. It became a commercial logo for RCA Victor, but was initially registered as a trademark in the US in 1900 by Emile Berliner for his Gramophone Company.

[3]According to Allan Sutton, the record label cofounder Ellsworth A. Hawthorne claimed in an interview that the slogan came "from a friend who was escorting a group of American Indians to the St. Louis Exposition and had observed the calming effect that phonograph music had on them during their journey." Alan Sutton, *American Record Company: A History and Discography*, 2nd edn (Highlands Ranch, CO, 2023), 5, at https://adp.library.ucsb.edu/pdfs/American-Record-Co-Discography.pdf.

[4]For larger issues of redface, blackface, and yellowface in the twentieth century see Krystyn R. Moon, *Yellowface: Creating the Chinese in American Popular Music and Performance, 1850s–1920s* (London, 2005); Bethany Hughes, *Redface: Race, Performance, and Indigeneity* (New York, 2024); Rhae Lynn Barnes, *Darkology: When the American Dream Wore Blackface* (New York, 2026); Esther Kim Lee, *Made-Up Asians: Yellowface during the Exclusion Era* (Ann Arbor, 2022).

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Figure 1. Label for the American Record Company. Courtesy of Glenda Goodman.

Rosebud Reservations achieved a complex form of success performing in Wild West Shows in the late nineteenth century. However, their participation occurred within a framework that stereotyped and commodified Native culture, bolstering the harmful misconception of Native peoples as a monolithic entity perpetually stuck in the past.[5] In response to such misrepresentations, and as a means of asserting cultural continuity and sovereignty, the ability of Native nations to demonstrate authenticity through rich repertoires of traditional songs and dances has been critically important. This assertion of identity is vital for internal community cohesion, intertribal relationships, and external validation, including interactions with the US government

[5]The question of authenticity, redface, and Native American performers is taken up in scholarship on Wild West shows. See Joy S. Kasson, *Buffalo Bill's Wild West: Celebrity, Memory, and Popular History* (New York, 2001); Louis S. Warren, *Buffalo Bill's America: William Cody and the Wild West Show* (New York, 2006).

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concerning federal recognition. The widespread adoption and evolution of Plains-style powwows across the continent, for example, powerfully illustrates the enduring significance of these living traditions in maintaining and expressing distinct cultural identities.

This article focuses on how, for white performers, the printed songs served to authenticate their historical research and legitimate their redface practices at a time when academic disciplines and popular culture were consolidating in new ways. To tease out this complex intellectual and cultural history, we turn to three Native American songs that were transcribed in the seventeenth century by French Jesuits Jacques Marquette (1637–75) and Louis Jolliet (1645–1700), included in printed books in the eighteenth and nineteenth centuries, and then used by historians and redface entertainers in the twentieth century.[6] Some sources describe them as songs from the calumet ceremony. Sources indicate that these are Peoria Indian calumet songs.[7] When the songs were converted to written musical notation, they became mediated artifacts that communicated information about Native American music and about how the white Jesuits heard and interpreted it. The three songs at the center of this article were extracted from their ceremonial context and repurposed as primary sources. Regardless of the questions surrounding the songs' provenance, they came to index authenticity valued by academics and entertainers alike. Their unfettered reproduction in printed outlets demonstrates the centrality of music and fantasies about Native Americans in twentieth-century America.

In addition to centering Native American songs in scholarly and popular domains, this article considers music notation as an important yet confounding historical source. Documenting Native American music in writing before the advent of recorded sound

[6]Claude-Charles Le Roy Bacqueville de la Potherie, *Histoire de l'Amérique septentrionale*, vol. 2 (Paris, 1722), plate between 20 and 21. Later editions of the volume were published in Amsterdam by Henry des Bordes (1723) and again in Paris by Brocas (1753) and Nyon (1753). The songs are also in *Mission du Canada: Relations inédites de la Nouvelle-France (1672–1679) pour faire suite aux anciennes relations (1615–1672), avec deux cartes géographiques*, vol. 2 (Paris, 1861), 273; Ernest Gagnon, "Louis Jolliet, premier seigneur d'Anticosti," *Revue canadienne* 38 (1900), 280–81, later reprinted in Gagnon, *Louis Jolliet, découvreur du Mississippi et du pays des Illinois, premier seigneur de l'île d'Anticosti: Étude biographique et historiographique* (Québec City, 1902), 66–7; Reuben Gold Thwaites, ed., *The Jesuit Relations and Allied Documents*, 73 vols. (Cleveland, 1896–1901), 59: 310; Alfred Hamy, *Au Mississippi: La première exploration (1673): Le père Jacques Marquette de Laon, prÊtre de la Compagnie de Jésus (1637–1675) et Louis Jolliet, d'après M. Ernest Gagnon* (Paris, 1903), 136; Emma Helen Blair, ed., *The Indian Tribes of the Upper Mississippi Valley and the Great Lakes Region*, 2 vols. (Cleveland, 1911), 1: 183; Harry Johnston Hamilton, *Pioneers in Canada* (London and Toronto, 1912), 191; Edna Kenton, ed., *The Jesuit Relations and Allied Documents: Travels and Explorations of the Jesuit Missionaries in North America (1610–1791)* (New York, 1925), 355; Kenton, ed., *The Indians of North America: from The Jesuit Relations and Allied Documents: Travels and Explorations of the Jesuit Missionaries in New France, 1610–1791*, 2 vols. (New York, 1927), 2: 551–2. We trace the long, circuitous journey of the songs in *Notating Empire: Printed Music and the Frontiers of Cultural Knowledge* (in progress).

[7]The songs appear in a lengthy description of the calumet ceremony in a chapter about Peoria customs. Thwaites, *The Jesuit Relations and Allied Documents*. 59: 131–7. On Marquette and Jolliet's time in an unnamed Peoria village see Joseph P. Donnelly, *Jacques Marquette, S.J. 1637–1675* (Chicago, 1968), 215–19. As discussed below, Emma Helen Blair explicitly introduces this label and popular-culture publications follow suit. See Blair, *The Indian Tribes*, 1: 183.

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was a necessary precursor for any subsequent type of use.[8] We start from the premise that no technology can fully capture a musical performance. Both written notation and recordings are lossy, compromised, and subjective representations; something is preserved, but something is always lost.[9] In the case of written music, there are two moments of interruption and dislocation: first, transcribing by ear, and second, converting that manuscript transcription to notation printed on a page. Transcribing music involves writing on the fly and from memory; the transcriber catches what they can of the melody, rhythm, harmony, and other musical elements. One may use cursory and incomplete music notation to do so.[10] There are inevitably discrepancies between the intended sound and the recorded result. The live aural experience of hearing and feeling the vibrations of singing, dancing, or the powerful thrumming of a drum circle are irreplicable. Notation transcribed initially by hand, like any inscription system, is biased—the transcriber captures what they recognize more readily than what is unfamiliar. It also changes when converted to new formats, such as from manuscript to print, and from print to further forms of mass media. Epistemological and ethical questions of fidelity, authenticity, ownership, access, and repatriation surrounding other objects and representations of Native culture adhere to notated music that has come to be used as historical primary sources and props in redface entertainment industries. Considering the fallibility of music notation offers new insights into the very practice of interpreting the historical record, while also questioning what counts as a primary source.

Although examples of notated music are not uncommon in printed sources about intercultural encounters from the seventeenth to twentieth centuries, to our knowledge no other example was reprinted as many times.[11] We zero in on their appearance in anthologies in the early twentieth century and their recurring use in popular-culture outlets through the mid-twentieth century. The work of educated white women was essential to creating publications that circulated these songs. Emma Helen Blair had a master's degree from the University of Wisconsin and worked as a librarian, and Edna Kenton was a bohemian lesbian in Greenwich Village whose background as a journalist who wrote for theater and silent film led her to popularize the colonial documents for general consumption. Blair the rigorous researcher and Kenton the flamboyant storyteller demonstrate how the sources could speak to both academic and general publics. Examining the two women's efforts shows that, even in the face of gender

[8]On recording media and documentation of Native cultures see Brian Hochman, *Savage Preservation: The Ethnographic Origins of Modern Media Technology* (Minneapolis, 2014).

[9]There is a long history and deep historiography on the issues with transcription. See, for instance, classic works by Charles Seeger, "Prescriptive and Descriptive Music-Writing," *Musical Quarterly* 44/2 (1958), 184–95; Ter Ellingson, "Notation," in Helen Myers, ed., *Ethnomusicology: An Introduction* (New York, 1992), 153–64. On lossy processes in music formats see Jonathan Sterne, *MP3: The Meaning of a Format* (Durham, NC, 2012).

[10]Transcription was and still is a foundational skill for trained musicians and music scholars.

[11]No complete bibliography of such sources exists, but for an excellent overview of examples from North America see Victoria Lindsay Levine, ed., *Writing American Indian Music: Historic Transcriptions, Notations, and Arrangements* (Middleton, WI, 2002). On the significance of such sources as historical evidence see Glenda Goodman, "Sounds Heard, Meaning Deferred: Music Transcription as Imperial Technology," *Eighteenth-Century Studies* 52/1 (2018), 39–45.

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discrimination, white women leveraged their expertise and determined how exactly the songs appeared in print.[12]

The songs became increasingly accessible and decreasingly tied to their original context with each publication. The watershed moment in the songs' circulation was their inclusion in Volume 59 of the seventy-three-volume *The Jesuit Relations and Allied Documents* (1900). They were then reprinted in an anthology by Emma Helen Blair in 1911. Blending antiquarian and academic interests, the initial publications took for granted the benefits of increased access to the sources for educated users. Indeed, scholars still use these collections. Edna Kenton published the sources in 1925 and 1927 in books aimed at general readers, and subsequent reprintings of the songs in popular-culture outlets added dramatic and fanciful details, surrounding them with the growing body of caricatured Indian lore and entertainment steeped in redface practices. To the non-Native people whose hands touched and eyes glanced over the pages, the importance of the songs hinged not on how they sounded but on what they represented as tangible evidence of face-to-face intercultural encounters. The songs became a gateway to so-called authentic Indian culture from the past, available not just to scholars but to the general public, especially non-Indian children. Reprinting initially served the purpose of facilitating research but quickly was co-opted to feed the multimedia engine of white peoples' fantasies about Native Americans in the twentieth century.

By tracking how this access has turned Native American ceremonial performance into a written primary source and then back into performances by white entertainers and children, we bring attention to the contingency of the sources' creation and ongoing use. This article introduces music notation and musical performance into ongoing discussions about historical methodology. The specific literacy required to understand music notation can cause some scholars to pass over such sources. This article shows how the very way the songs are presented, bibliographically, in primary-source anthologies has encouraged the tendency to overlook them. Thus, despite serious efforts to pay attention to the historical ear and the history of sound and music by historians, the question of what to do with examples of printed, notated music remains open.[13] This article offers a model for how such sources can be read with skepticism and in context, similar to other primary sources. Yet notated music is always divorced from some of its context—the context in which it is performed, or "realized" to use the musicological term. Thus, examining the songs adds to our understanding about the constructedness of the historical record. The printed songs aren't themselves music; they are representations of an aural, vocal, embodied experience. Examining them illustrates that the very way printed sources are made comes to influence how historians interpret them. Finally, the transformation of the songs into sources raises questions

[12]On the often hidden labor of women in the field of history, as well as the relegation of women historians to the status of amateurs or semiprofessionals see Bonnie G. Smith, *The Gender of History: Men, Women, and Historical Practice* (Cambridge, 2000).

[13]See Sophia Rosenfeld, "On Being Heard: A Case for Paying Attention to the Historical Ear," *American Historical Review* 116/2 (2011), 316–34; Richard Cullen Rath, "Hearing American History," *Journal of American History* 95/2 (2008), 417–31.

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about authenticity, ownership, and access to Indigenous cultural expressions, to which we return at the end of the article.

From ritual to record: circulating music from the Jesuit *Relations*

The calumet ceremonies were critical across the riverine heart of Native North America for hundreds of years. They fostered peace and alliance, articulating a space for truces, diplomacy, and trade. The ceremonies were not just diplomatic, but also spiritual. Betrayal of a calumet ceremony was a ghastly violation that faced severe consequences both in this world and the next.[14] French missionaries and traders understood the diplomatic importance of the calumet as both a visual and and aural symbol that could allow safe passage through territories and provide a kind of material introduction when entering unfamiliar villages. Jacques Marquette and Louis Jolliet heard these calumet songs repeatedly during their journey along the northern Mississippi river in 1672. Marquette's account was collected by his superior, Claude Dablon; it never appeared in print because the *Relations* ceased publication after 1673. Instead, manuscript copies went unpublished for half a century.[15]

The three songs first appear in print in Claude-Charles Le Roy de la Potherie's (1663–1736) *Histoire de l'Amérique septentrionale* or *History of North America,* published in Paris in 1722. De la Potherie wrote his four-volume publication in Guadupe, based on his experiences in New France. Volume 2, on Native American customs, was drawn from manuscript sources, including Marquette's report. The songs served as evidence that demonstrated both Jesuit missionary fortitude and French imperialist information gathering. Each of the three songs is short and monophonic (a single, unharmonized melodic line), each in a treble range (Figures 2a, 2b). The melody is set syllabically, and the syllables sound like Peoria phonemes but are not actual words.[16] The melody and rhythm are also almost certainly only approximations of what the songs sounded like when sung. There is no information about either tempo or possible accompaniment—no indication of drums, shouts, the force of collective or individual voices straining to reach the high notes. The musical score is a pale trace of a meaningful performance. It would not facilitate the re-creation of that performance, not only

[14]On the ceremony in the seventeenth century see Tracy Neal Leavelle, *The Catholic Calumet: Colonial Conversions in French and Indian North America* (Philadelphia, 2012); Jacob F. Lee, *Masters of the Middle Waters: Indian Nations and Colonial Ambitions along the Mississippi* (Cambridge, 2019). Brett Rushforth, *Bonds of Alliance: Indigenous and Atlantic Slaveries in New France* (Chapel Hill, 2012), 32–3. On the consequences of violation see Richard White, *The Middle Ground: Indians, Empires, and Republics in the Great Lakes Region, 1650–1815* (New York and Cambridge, 2011), 21–2. The calumet itself was an important cross-cultural symbol by 1500. See Kathleen DuVal, *The Native Ground: Indians and Colonists in the Heart of the Continent* (Philadelphia, 2006), 19.

[15]Two extant copies of the manuscript of Marquette's journal exist. One is at the Archives françaises de la Compagnie de Jésus, Vanves, France; the other is in the Archives des jésuites au Canada (AJC Montreal). A facsimile of the manuscript can be found in Robert Stevenson, "Written Sources for Indian Music until 1882," *Ethnomusicology* 17/1 (1973), 1–40, at 20.

[16]Emails from David Costa (18 March 2025) and Elizabeth Ellis (1 September 2024). Both confirm that the lyrics have elements that sound plausibly Miami-Illinois (with very similar languages), such as *mintigomi*, *atchitchale*, and *matchiminamba*, but they don't actually mean anything. Other words, such as *schagobe* and *bannogue*, don't look like plausible Miami-Illinois words, according to Costa.

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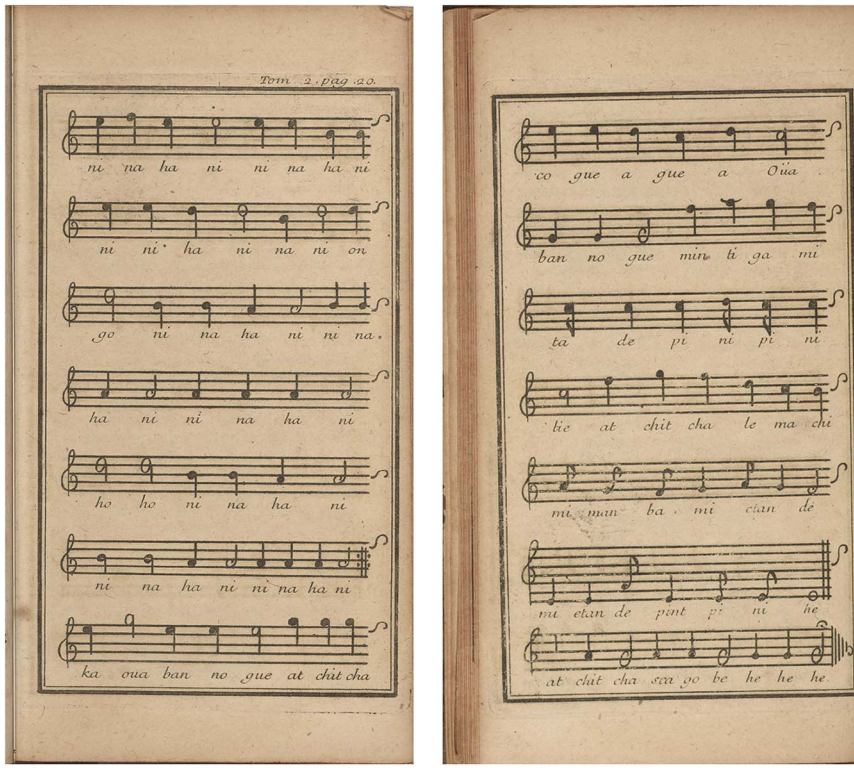


Figure 2. (a) and (b) Three songs in de la Potherie's *Histoire de l'Amérique septentrionale*, vol. 2 (Paris, 1722). Courtesy of the University of Pennsylvania Libraries.

because of all the lacking information, but also because the songs were printed in a small format, on the recto and verso of the same sheet, making it hard for performers to read and turn pages while singing.

The songs are even more radically separated from the idea of musical performance as they appear in *The Jesuit Relations and Allied Documents*. In the early twentieth century, an English-speaking reader who wished to learn about Jacques Marquette and Louis Jolliet's 1673 journey through Illinois country could open Volume 59, published in 1901, and consult pages 118 to 156. In those pages, the reader would find a new translation of the seventeenth-century French text, complete with footnotes that guided the reader to other useful sources. Buried in the back of Volume 59, squeezed among the voluminous footnotes in the scholarly apparatus, is a cramped reproduction of the three calumet songs (Figure 3). Compared to the large, color-printed inserted map accompanying the volume, the space allotted for the music is stingy. It is an afterthought, one of the myriad extra details included to contextualize the main body of the text: the translated narrative of the original primary source.

Scholars of Native American history, Native American languages, colonial North America, the American West, French history, Atlantic history, and religious studies

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authority "a manuscript preserved by the Jesuits, at Paris, in which appear the notation of the song in the calumet dance, and the beginning of the seventh section." The song is as follows:



Cf. illustrated description of calumet dance, as practiced among the Omaha Indians, given in *U. S. Bur. Ethnol. Rep.*, 1881–82, pp. 276–282.

30 (p. 137).—This is the heading of section 7 given in the Lenox edition—a made-up title, however, as the Thevenot text is not divided into sections, but continues throughout without a break. Martin made another heading, given in the Douniol edition (and also in his copy from the Thevenot text, with which he supplied the gap in the Montreal MS.), which reads as follows, in translation: "Continuation of the voyage: various rarities encountered along the route; of the Pekitanoui river, by which one can proceed to California." Shea omits any section division at this point, and in his translation numbers the succeeding sections vii., viii., and ix., respectively.

31 (p. 139).—Here ends the lacuna supplied from the Thevenot text.

Pekitanoui: the Missouri River. "The name here given by Marquette, [meaning] 'muddy water,' prevailed till Marest's time (1712). A branch of Rock river is still called Pekatonica. The *Recollects* called the Missouri, the river of the Ozages."—Shea's note in *Disc. of Miss. Valley*, p. 38.

32 (p. 139).—French, *ut supra*, p. 38, thus identifies these plants

Figure 3. Calumet songs in the endnotes to Reuben Gold Thwaites, ed., *The Jesuit Relations and Allied Documents*, vol. 59 (Cleveland, 1901), 311. Courtesy of the University of Pennsylvania Libraries.

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know *The Jesuit Relations and Allied Documents* as an indispensable collection.[17] Compiled by a team at the State Historical Society of Wisconsin overseen by Reuben Gold Thwaites (1853–1913) and published by the Burrows Brothers in Cleveland between 1896 and 1901, the seventy-three-volume set aimed to capitalize on the bibliomania that drove collectors to try to acquire copies of the original French editions of Jesuit reports. Aiming for comprehensiveness, the "Wisconsin edition" included new translations of the original annual Jesuit reports, published in France from 1632 to 1673 by Sebastien and Gabriel Cramoisy.[18] The Wisconsin edition also included an additional 207 documents to further flesh out the French history of New France. The Cleveland publishers anticipated that the entire series would consist of sixty volumes; they ended up with seventy-three.[19] It included a robust scholarly apparatus, complete with footnotes and an index that takes up the final two bound volumes of the set. Creating it required a large team of translators, editors, and proofreaders. Under the supervision of Thwaites, the Wisconsin edition reframed the documents; instead of being expressions of Jesuits' religious faith, they were presented as valuable primary sources. They took on the guise of ethnographic records that provided crucial evidence of Native American life and customs for white readers.[20] The three songs are the only notated music in the series; they represent a tiny fraction of the vast store of evidence.

Thwaites's goal with the Wisconsin edition was to make sources accessible. Thwaites had little formal training in history: he attended Yale but earned no postsecondary degrees. Nevertheless, he was made the head of the State Historical Society of Wisconsin in 1887. In 1889, he became president of the American Library Association, and in 1910 he was elected president of the historical society, which morphed into the Organization of American Historians. He was known for supporting modern historical training by opening the archives to graduate seminars, including those run by his close younger associate at the University of Wisconsin, Frederick Jackson Turner (1861–1932). Thwaites called for card catalogs and thematic organization at the State Historical Society of Wisconsin, and was an evangelist for technology. He believed that archival research was essential for historians and that such research needed to be scientifically systematic.[21] Thwaites's editorial introduction to the compendium made the publication's goals clear: the work was to further education, and to make available

[17]On the relations and their bibliography see Micah True, "Jesuit Relations," *Oxford Bibliographies: American Literature*, last modified 25 April 2022, at doi: 10.1093/obo/9780199827251-0097.

[18]On the history of *The Jesuit Relations* and the creation of the "Wisconsin edition" see Meredith Beck Sayre, "The Process of Conversion: A Biography of the Jesuit 'Relations'" (Ph.D. dissertation, University of Wisconsin–Madison, 2014); Micah True, *The Jesuit Relations: A Biography* (Montreal and Kingston, 2025).

[19]In 1895, Burrows Brothers advertised in a pamphlet that they would print 750 copies of a complete series for subscribers. They anticipated the series would consist of sixty volumes in total. Ibid., 110.

[20]On this transformation see ibid. Also see Micah True, *Masters and Students: Jesuit Mission Ethnography in Seventeenth-Century New France* (Montréal, 2015); True, "Travel Writing, Ethnography, and the Colony-Centric Voyage of the Jesuit Relations from New France," *American Review of Canadian Studies* 42/1 (2012), 102–16; David E. Crawford, "The Jesuit Relations and Allied Documents, Early Sources for an Ethnography of Music among American Indians," *Ethnomusicology* 11/2 (1967), 199–206. Our thanks to Chris Parsons for suggestions about scholarship on the *Jesuit Relations*.

[21]Sayre, "The Process of Conversion," 118–19. On history as scientific practice see W. Stull Holt, "The Idea of Scientific History in America," *Journal of the History of Ideas* 1/3 (1940), 352–62.

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French manuscripts and print sources to more people who could use them in English for personal edification and scholarly research. "For forty years, these documents have, in part, been more or less familiar to Americanists as a rich storehouse of material. But, hitherto, they have existed only in rare and costly forms," wrote Thwaites.[22] With the Wisconsin edition, "students of American history" did not need to have access to a historical society or archive, and could read sources in English translation.[23]

The Wisconsin edition became a collector's item, partly due to its limited run. The high cost of the collection meant that library acquisition was essential to fulfilling the compilers' goals of providing access to the sources for scholars. Newspapers noted when series were purchased by the Detroit Public Library, the Alameda Public Library in the Bay Area of California, and the Rhode Island Historical Society. When copies with unique provenance went up for auction, people also took note, as when well-known collector A. S. W. Rosenbach purchased forty-seven volumes for $11,000 from the private New York library of Herman Le Roy Edgar.[24] Substantial gifts were also noted, as when an almost complete set was donated to the University of Minnesota by James F. Bell, the founder of General Mills, Inc. and a regent of the university, and when the Bodleian Library at Oxford acquired their set via donation.[25] The edition became expensive collector's items. They were more accessible linguistically and physically than the rare seventeenth-century French Jesuit *Relations*, but exceeded most pocketbooks.

None of this access would have been possible without the huge amount of labor that went into *The Jesuit Relations and Allied Documents*. It involved a meticulous and systematic process, mirroring the methodical creation of the original Jesuit *Relations*. Texts were transcribed and translated in the libraries where they were housed, then forwarded to Wisconsin for proofing, annotation, and collation. Thwaites relied on a team of female workers to handle intellectual and editorial work that he considered menial, such as copying, indexing, and organizing information on thousands of index cards. Emma Helen Blair, one of these women, played a central role by compiling the comprehensive two-volume index and crafting the majority of the ethnographic footnotes and annotations, particularly those concerning place names. Blair's insightful annotations transformed the publication into a valuable and accessible resource, both as an ethnographic document and as a navigable scholarly reference tool.[26]

Women's work: compiling compendia

While North American exploration, priesthood in the Society of Jesus, and being a professional historian were male domains, learned women were vital in turning these songs into primary sources accessible to scholars and the public. Their knowledge

[22] Reuben Gold Thwaites, "General Preface," in Thwaites, *The Jesuit Relations and Allied Documents*, 1: viii.

[23] Ibid., ix. The review in *American Historical Review* heralded it as liberating for scholars who had previously had to rely on limited access to French originals. See Charles W. Colby, "The Jesuit Relations," *American Historical Review* 7/1 (1901), 36–55, esp. 52–3.

[24] "Jesuit Relations," *Catholic Bulletin*, 11 Dec. 1920, 1.

[25] "Jesuit Relations," *Catholic Advance*, 13 Nov. 1953, 11; "Report of the Librarian and Cabinet-Keeper," *Publications of the Rhode Island Historical Society* 6/1 (1898), 49; "Annual Report of the Curators of the Bodleian Library for 1913," *Oxford University Gazette*, 11 March 1914, 559.

[26] Sayre, "The Process of Conversion," 141–2.

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production complicates given narratives of intellectual history as the domain of erudite men. White women's use of these songs shaped perceptions of Native American culture in both scholarly and popular contexts. Unsurprisingly, women's work went unacknowledged, yet it served as the foundation for publications that advanced men's nationally recognized careers. As more white women entered higher education at the turn of the twentieth century, their labor became more evident, even as gendered gatekeeping persisted. Emma Helen Blair and Edna Kenton both attended major land grant universities and went on to publish books that recirculated the three songs. The women represent two approaches to disseminating evidence: one grounded in rigorous historical methodology, the other spiced with a freewheeling bohemian flair. They also show two ways in which the songs were launched still further from their tribal origins.

A Wisconsin native, Emma Helen Blair had attended high school in Boston before returning to Wisconsin to attend Ripon College, after which she taught in the Milwaukee Public Schools before starting her postgraduate work in her forties (Figure 4). She earned a master's degree in history, studying under historian Frederick Jackson Turner at the University of Wisconsin from 1892 to 1894. There she worked with sources she would later edit and compile. In two of Turner's lecture courses offered at the University of Wisconsin History Department and the Extension School in 1893 ("The History of the West" and "The Colonization of North America: From the Earliest Times to 1763"), required readings included primary-source materials from Louis Jolliet, Jacques Marquette, and their French explorer contemporary Nicolas Perrot (1644–1717), as well as secondary-source material from Turner's friend, Thwaites.[27] Blair subsequently worked under Thwaites, first as the librarian in charge of the State Historical Society of Wisconsin's map and manuscript collections, then as his editorial assistant. In addition to assisting Thwaites (who was two years her junior), Blair released publications of primary-source collections, including a fifty-five-volume set on the Philippines, until her death from cancer in 1911.[28]

Blair was the assistant editor for the entire Wisconsin edition, and as such she was responsible for much of the compiling, indexing, and footnoting. We can thank Blair for including the calumet songs in the back of Volume 59 of the Wisconsin edition.[29] Blair found the songs in an 1861 publication of Marquette's account issued by the Society of Jesus in Paris titled *Mission du Canada* (Figure 5).[30] One can see that the songs were copied exactly—the layout and style of the music notation is the same in the 1861 *Mission du Canada* publication and the Wisconsin edition. Both of these are

[27]Collection of syllabuses, Box 64, Volume 6, Frederick Jackson Turner Papers, Huntington Library, San Marino, CA.

[28]Emma Helen Blair and James Alexander Robertson, eds., *The Philippine Islands, 1493–1803* (later *The Philippine Islands, 1493–1898*), 55 vols. (Cleveland, 1903–9). Also see Glòria Cano, "Blair and Robertson's 'The Philippine Islands, 1493–1898': Scholarship or Imperialist Propaganda?", *Philippine Studies* 56/1 (2008), 3–46.

[29]Thwaites, *Jesuit Relations*, 59: 310 n. 29.

[30]*Mission du Canada*, 2: 273.

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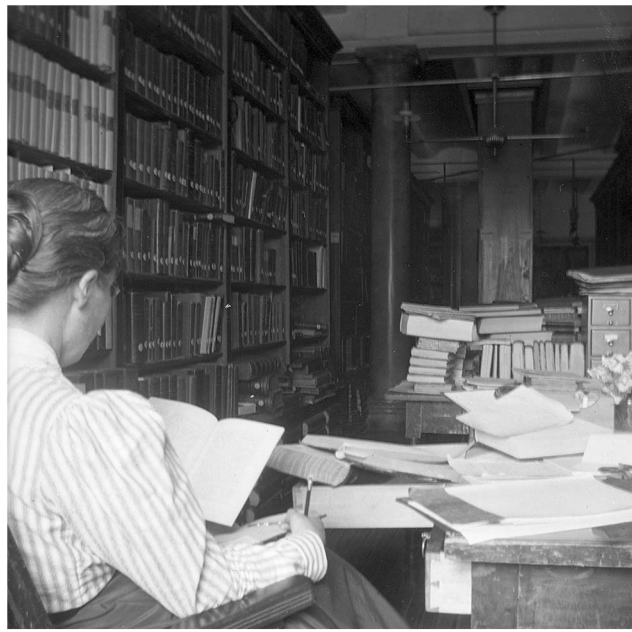


Figure 4. Photograph of Emma Helen Blair at her desk in the Historical Society offices, taken by Reuben Gold Thwaites (W013DDA). Courtesy of the Wisconsin Historical Society.

printed differently from the original printed version from 1722 (compare Figures 3 and 5 to Figures 2a, 2b). The notes themselves are the same, but the appearance on the page is not. Although every previous publication of the songs, including in *Mission du Canada*, featured them in the main body of the text, Blair placed them in the endnotes of the Wisconsin edition (see Figure 3). Miniaturized to fit on half a page and thus difficult to read, musical notation became an illustration of the *idea* of music, rather than providing readers with an example to study closely (let alone sing from). Blair subsequently reproduced a facsimile of the three songs in her edited compendium of primary sources entitled *The Indian Tribes of the Upper Mississippi Valley and Region of the Great Lakes* (1911), where she labeled the three songs as one "Calumet Song."

Unlike in the Wisconsin edition, for which Blair used the printed version of the songs that had appeared in *Mission du Canada*, in *The Indian Tribes* she returned to the original publication by de la Potherie (Figure 6). Although de la Potherie's book printed the songs on the recto and verso of a single page, Blair's book printed the pages side by side. Thus the three songs are visible all at once without requiring a page turn, albeit on a smaller scale than the 1722 original (though they are larger than in the Wisconsin edition). Yet the score appears in a narrative from French explorer Nicolas Perrot, not de la Potherie, even though *The Indian Tribes* also contains excerpts from de la Potherie. This was intentional: in her notes on the copyedited manuscript for the publication, Blair provided explicit instructions both on where to place the songs and on where to acquire photographic negatives from a copy of

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Figure 5. Calumet songs in *Mission du Canada: Relations inédites de la Nouvelle-France (1672–1679)* (Paris, 1861), 273. Public domain. Original at the University of Michigan.

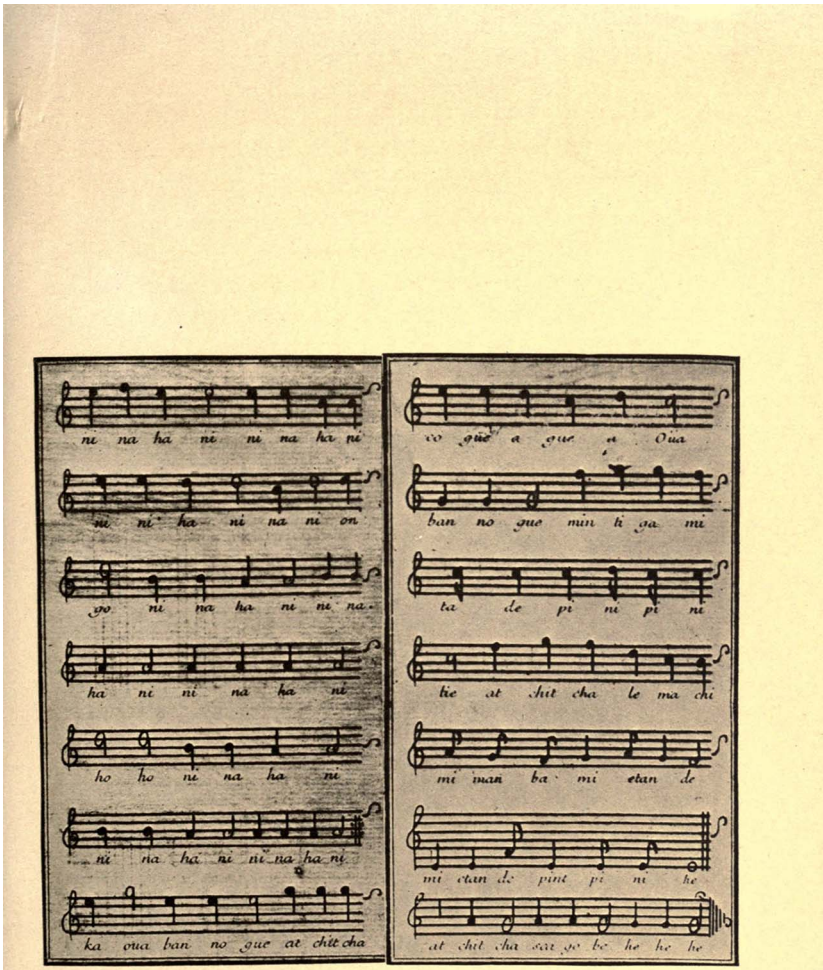
de la Potherie.[31] The songs were thus visually more legible but contextually more obscure.

Because Blair's two-volume set was less expensive than the seventy-three-volume Wisconsin edition, owning a copy was more realistic for many people. Blair's stated goal was to bring out sources that were "almost buried under nearly a century's dust" and make them known to "the reading public."[32] Blair sought to do the lion's share

[31]Emma Helen Blair, copyedited manuscript of *The Indian Tribes*, Kislak Center for Special Collections, Rare Books and Manuscripts, University of Pennsylvania. Uncatalogued, undated. The songs appear in a section by Perrot about a calumet ceremony.

[32]Blair, *The Indian Tribes*, 1: 13.

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CALUMET SONG

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Figure 6. "Calumet Song," in Emma Helen Blair, ed., *The Indian Tribes of the Upper Mississippi Valley*, vol. 1 (Cleveland, 1911). Public domain. Original at the University of California.

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of the work for her reader, making sources available and verifying that the information was accurate and up to date.[33] She was abundantly modest, but, when she died, newspapers lauded her contributions to American history.[34] Blair won honorary degrees from Ripon and the University of Wisconsin, and in 1976 she was featured as "one of the most remarkable women of Wisconsin." She was credited for her "vigilant accuracy, historical imagination, wide general knowledge, and fine sense of language."[35]

If Emma Helen Blair exemplifies the diligent historical researcher who laid the groundwork on which historians built, Edna Kenton was the dramatic rule breaker who saw the imagination-stoking potential in primary sources and sought to bring their drama to a wider readership (Figure 7). Kenton shared a Midwestern upbringing and college education with Emma Helen Blair, but their life paths diverged significantly. Born in Springfield, Missouri, Kenton pursued a research and book-publishing career after attending the University of Michigan. Having relocated to Manhattan's West Village, she immersed herself in overlapping bohemian communities of avant-garde artists, playwrights, radical feminists, and fellow lesbians pursuing ideas of modernity. Kenton thrived in the hotbed of artistic and intellectual dissidence that was early twentieth-century Greenwich Village.[36] Notably, she fostered long-lasting collaborations with women-only organizations as a charter member of Heterodoxy, a radical women's group. She cofounded, managed, and wrote plays for the modern theater group the Provincetown Players, and wrote the screenplay for the silent film *Bondage* (1917) with Universal Pictures.[37] Kenton rejected social expectations about women's decorum or dress, eschewing tight-fitting clothes for Japanese-inspired kimonos, which, she argued, were more suitable for active feminist reformers. Describing herself as "stout," Kenton asserted that "the larger woman doesn't need a corset any more than the thin woman does … the bliss of having every limb free and untrammeled is one I wouldn't barter for anything."[38]

Kenton's polymathic interests led her to the Wisconsin edition, whose sources she saw as gripping narratives that would captivate scholars and general readers. "[T]hese reports—letters, journals, formal *Relations* or whatever—are travel, exploration and adventure narrations of high *dramatic* calibre," she wrote. She praised the Wisconsin edition, but noted that its contents were out of reach for most: "since only 750 sets were published, the *Relations* of the Jesuits were, for the general reader, as inaccessible

[33]She maintained a correspondence with officials at the Bureau of American Ethnology in Washington, who allowed her to see proofs of their forthcoming second volume of the *Handbook of American Indians*. Blair, *The Indian Tribes*, 1: 18.

[34]"Miss Blair's Last Work," *Portage Daily Democrat*, 24 Feb. 1912, 2, noted that her work was "rich with the fruits of her rare knowledge and ripe experience in bookmaking of this character."

[35]"She Put History in Its Place," *Neenah Menasha Northwestern*, 29 Oct. 1976, 2.

[36]Christine Stansell, *American Moderns: Bohemian New York and the Creation of a New Century* (New York, 2000), 6.

[37]The film starred Dorothy Phillips as a young country girl who longs to be a writer, runs away to the big city, and finds herself facing seduction, mayhem, and slanderous ruin.

[38]Einav Rabinovitch-Fox, *Dressed for Freedom: The Fashionable Politics of American Feminism* (Urbana, 2021), 74, 77.

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Figure 7. Photograph of Edna Kenton sitting on a roof. Courtesy of Schlesinger Library, Harvard Radcliffe Institute.

as ever."[39] Her publication sought to rectify that, and she succeeded in reaching a wider general readership than the prior editions.

Kenton produced a condensed, affordable, and physically manageable version of the Wisconsin edition's seventy-three volumes in the form of her five hundred-page *The Jesuit Relations and Allied Documents: Travels and Explorations of the Jesuit Missionaries in North America (1610–1791)*, published in 1925. She followed up in 1927 with an expanded two-volume set of excerpts from the Wisconsin edition titled *Indians of North America*. This required no small amount of work; she privately told her friend

[39]Kenton, *The Jesuit Relations*, iv, added emphasis.

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W. E. B. Du Bois that she was "working literally from twelve to fifteen hours these days on complicated proof of my two-volume 'Indians of North America,' trying, and failing, to keep up with the printer, and with a more complicated cross-reference Index staring me in the face."[40] For Kenton, the purpose was primarily to bring what she saw as exciting early American adventures to readers, but she also recognized the materials were "rare source material for the historian, the geographer, the philologist and the ethnologist."[41] She lauded the Wisconsin edition for being "a vast storehouse of related data on early American history, the American Indian, and the heroic men who wrote the story," the term "data" making explicit the connection between the primary sources and academic research.

The three calumet songs appear in both of Kenton's Jesuit source publications, miniaturized, as in the Wisconsin edition.[42] The songs are more visible in the first book, from 1925, because Kenton used footnotes rather than endnotes (Figure 8). Her 1927 publication used endnotes, which is where the notation appears, awkwardly split across two pages, making it even more complicated for someone to sing if they tried (Figures 9a, 9b). As with the Wisconsin edition, the music represents the idea of songs rather than music that could be realized in a performance.

As people and as compilers, Blair and Kenton differed sharply. Kenton's unconstrained pursuit of liberation, feminist solidarity, and multimodal creative fulfillment contrasts Blair's life and career path. Blair chose a conventional route for unmarried women: teaching, librarianship, and (less conventionally), higher education and research. She pursued her interests in a man's world in increasingly professionalized history departments, archives, and historical organizations. She navigated that world by seemingly conforming to the patriarchal expectations facing working women. Thwaites described the team behind the Wisconsin edition as his "young lady assistants," and we do not know whether Blair pushed back against this patronizing description, grudgingly accepted it, or was unperturbed.[43] Kenton operated entirely outside academia and often inhabited gender-segregated societies. At the same time, Blair found a place inside, thanks to her position at the Wisconsin State Historical Society, where she immersed herself in the exacting work of collecting, counting, and documenting historical data. Both women faced gendered prohibitions of their time; Blair, particularly, illustrates sidelining of female historians in the period of history's modern formation as a discipline in academia.

They also differed in their attitudes to the people whose histories they were anthologizing. Kenton played into the trope of the "vanishing Indian," whereas Blair wrote briefly but compellingly about the current concerns and needs of Native peoples. The first paragraph of Kenton's 1925 rip-roaring portrayal of the "heroic story of a new country's colonization" offers the dramatic and untrue statement, "Three hundred years ago America belonged to the Indian; today he is all but vanished, as the 'lost tribes' and

[40]Edna Kenton to W. E. B. Du Bois, 28 Sept. 1926, MS 312, W. E. B. Du Bois Papers, Special Collections and University Archives, University of Massachusetts Amherst Libraries.

[41]Kenton, *The Jesuit Relations*, iii.

[42]Ibid., 355; Kenton, *The Indians of North America*, 2: 274 for lyrics, 2: 551–2 n. 1 for notation.

[43]"Young lady assistants" comes from Sayre, "The Process of Conversion," 120, quoting a letter from Thwaites to his collaborator, Arthur Clark.

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him who holds the Calumet; for, when the Combat is ended without bloodshed, he recounts the battles at which he has been present, the victories that he has won, the names of the Nations, the places, and the Captives whom he has made. And, to reward him, he who presides at the Dance makes him a present of a fine robe of Beaver-skins, or some other article. Then, having received it, he hands the Calumet to another, the latter to a third, and so on with all the others, until everyone has done his duty; then the President presents the Calumet itself to the Nation that has been invited to the Ceremony, as a token of the everlasting peace that is to exist between the two peoples.

Here is one of the Songs that they are in the habit of singing. They give it a certain turn which cannot be sufficiently expressed by Note, but which nevertheless constitutes all its grace.

Ninahani, ninahani, ninahani, nani ongo.[1]

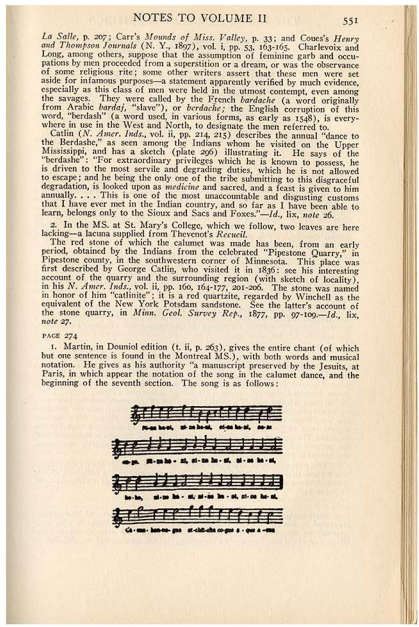
[1] Martin, in Douniol edition (t. ii, p. 273) gives the entire chant (of which but one sentence is found in the Montreal MS.), with both words and musical notation. He gives as his authority "a manuscript preserved by the Jesuits, at Paris, in which appear the notation of the song in the calumet dance, and the beginning of the seventh section." The song is as follows:



Cf. illustrated description of calumet dance, as practiced among the Omaha Indians, given in *U. S. Bur. Ethnol. Rep.*, 1881-82, pp. 276-282.—*Ibid.*, lix., *note* 29.

Figure 8. Calumet songs in Kenton's compilation, *The Jesuit Relations and Allied Documents: Travels and Explorations of the Jesuit Missionaries in North America (1610–1791)* (New York, 1925). Courtesy of the University of Pennsylvania Libraries.

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La Salle, p. 207; Carr's *Mounds of Miss. Valley*, p. 33; and Coues's *Henry and Thompson Journals* (N. Y., 1897), vol. i, pp. 53, 163-165. Charlevoix and Long, among others, suppose that the assumption of feminine garb and occupations by men proceeded from a superstition or a dream, or was the observance of some religious rite; some other writers assert that these men were set aside for infamous purposes—a statement apparently verified by much evidence, especially as this class of men were held in the utmost contempt, even among the savages. They were called by the French *bardache* (a word originally from Arabic *bardaj*, "slave"), or *berdache;* the English corruption of this word, "berdash" (a word used, in various forms, as early as 1548), is everywhere in use in the West and North, to designate the men referred to.

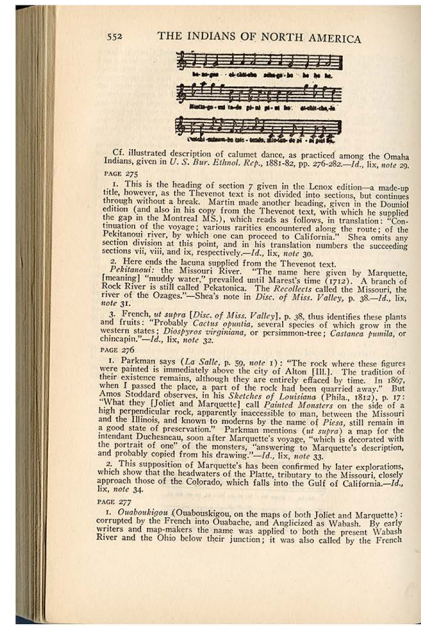
Catlin (*N. Amer. Indns.*, vol. ii, pp. 214, 215) describes the annual "dance to the Berdashe," as seen among the Indians whom he visited on the Upper Mississippi, and has a sketch (plate 296) illustrating it. He says of the "berdashe": "For extraordinary privileges which he is known to possess, he is driven to the most servile and degrading duties, which he is not allowed to escape; and he being the only one of the tribe submitting to this disgraceful degradation, is looked upon as *medicine* and sacred, and a feast is given to him annually. . . . This is one of the most unaccountable and disgusting customs that I have ever met in the Indian country, and so far as I have been able to learn, belongs only to the Sioux and Sacs and Foxes."—*Id.*, lix, *note* 26.

2. In the MS. at St. Mary's College, which we follow, two leaves are here lacking—a lacuna supplied from Thevenot's *Recueil*.

The red stone of which the calumet was made has been, from an early period, obtained by the Indians from the celebrated "Pipestone Quarry," in Pipestone county, in the southwestern corner of Minnesota. This place was first described by George Catlin, who visited it in 1836; see his interesting account of the quarry and the surrounding region (with sketch of locality), in his *N. Amer. Indns.*, vol. ii, pp. 160, 164-177, 201-206. The stone was named in honor of him "catlinite"; it is a red quartzite, regarded by Winchell as the equivalent of the New York Potsdam sandstone. See the latter's account of the stone quarry, in *Minn. Geol. Survey Rep.*, 1877, pp. 97-109.—*Id.*, lix, *note* 27.

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1. Martin, in Dousniol edition (t. ii, p. 263), gives the entire chant (of which but one sentence is found in the Montreal MS.), with both words and musical notation. He gives as his authority "a manuscript preserved by the Jesuits, at Paris, in which appear the notation of the song in the calumet dance, and the beginning of the seventh section. The song is as follows:



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Cf. illustrated description of calumet dance, as practiced among the Omaha Indians, given in *U. S. Bur. Ethnol. Rep.*, 1881-82, pp. 276-282.—*Id.*, lix, *note* 29.

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1. This is the heading of section 7 given in the Lenox edition—a made-up title, however, as the Thevenot text is not divided into sections, but continues through without a break. Martin made another heading, given in the Dousniol edition (and also in his copy from the Thevenot text, with which he supplied the gap in the Montreal MS.), which reads as follows, in translation: "Continuation of the voyage; various rarities encountered along the route; of the Pekitanoui river, by which one can proceed to California." Shea omits any section division at this point, and in his translation numbers the succeeding sections vii, viii, and ix, respectively.—*Id.*, lix, *note* 30.

2. Here ends the lacuna supplied from the Thevenot text.

Pekitanoui: the Missouri River. "The name here given by Marquette, [meaning] "muddy water," prevailed until Marest's time (1712). A branch of Rock River is still called Pekatonica. *The Recollects* called the Missouri, the river of the Ozages."—Shea's note in *Disc. of Miss. Valley*, p. 38.—*Id.*, lix, *note* 31.

3. French, *ut supra* [*Disc. of Miss. Valley*], p. 38, thus identifies these plants and fruits: "Probably *Cactus opuntia*, several species of which grow in the western states; *Diospyros virginiana*, or persimmon-tree; *Castanea pumila*, or chincapin."—*Id.*, lix, *note* 32.

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1. Parkman says (*La Salle*, p. 59, *note* 1): "The rock where these figures were painted is immediately above the city of Alton [Ill.]. The tradition of their existence remains, although they are entirely effaced by time. In 1867, when I passed the place, a part of the rock had been quarried away." But Amos Stoddard observes, in his *Sketches of Louisiana* (Phila., 1812), p. 17: "What they [Joliet and Marquette] call *Painted Monsters* on the side of a high perpendicular rock, apparently inaccessible to man, between the Missouri and the Illinois, and known to moderns by the name of *Picas*, still remain in a good state of preservation." Parkman mentions (*ut supra*) a map for the intendant Duchesneau, soon after Marquette's voyage, "which is decorated with the portrait of one" of the monsters, "answering to Marquette's description, and probably copied from his drawing."—*Id.*, lix, *note* 33.

2. This supposition of Marquette's has been confirmed by later explorations, which show that the headwaters of the Platte, tributary to the Missouri, closely approach those of the Colorado, which falls into the Gulf of California.—*Id.*, lix, *note* 34.

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1. *Ouabouskigou* (Ouabouskigou, on the maps of both Joliet and Marquette): corrupted by the French into Ouabache, and Anglicized as Wabash. By early writers and map-makers the name was applied to both the present Wabash River and the Ohio below their junction; it was also called by the French

Figure 9. (a) and (b) Calumet songs in Kenton's 1927 compilation, *The Indians of North America: From The Jesuit Relations and Allied Documents: Travels and Explorations of the Jesuit Missionaries in New France, 1610–1791*, 2 vols. (New York, 1927). Courtesy of the University of Pennsylvania Libraries.

clans of his race have already gone, leaving behind them no temples, no libraries, no buried cities for record of their past."[44] Kenton leveraged this precarity to argue for the significance of the Jesuit *Relations* for preserving "the folklore, the religion, the mythology, the manners and morals, even the speech and detailed daily living of these vanished people."[45] In this way, Kenton aligned with salvage anthropology, a field where women took some of the leadership roles.[46]

None of the publications were issued with any consultation with tribes whose ancestors were Illinois affiliates. Still, Blair acknowledged the current interests and experiences of Native people by including addenda from contemporary scholars and missionaries, including anthropologist Franz Boas and ethnomusicologist and allotment advocate Alice Cunningham Fletcher. She also pointedly argued that her research allowed her to present a more accurate view of Native American history and culture, and thus was able "to place before the reader a more accurate and lifelike view of aboriginal life and character than is usually entertained by readers who know the Indian mainly through newspaper and magazine 'stories,' novels, and 'Wild West shows.'"[47]

[44]Kenton, *The Jesuit Relations*, iii.

[45]Ibid., iii.

[46]Samuel J. Redman, *Prophets and Ghosts: The Story of Salvage Anthropology* (Cambridge, 2021); John M. Rhea, *Field of Their Own: Women and American Indian History, 1830–1941* (Norman, 2021).

[47]Blair, *The Indian Tribes*, 1: 19.

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Blair the historian cared about the integrity of her work. But Blair also showed a streak of political activism, a chance to speak out against the horrendous treatment of Native Americans. "My work on these volumes will be well repaid if those who read them gain a clearer realization that the Indian is in reality very much the same kind of being that his white brother would have been if put in the red man's place." Emphasizing human sameness rather than difference, she called out as "inhuman and brutal" the belief that "there is no good Indian except a dead one."[48] If Kenton wanted to introduce readers to the amazing exploits of long ago, Blair wanted to bring moral concerns to her readers' attention.[49]

Kenton and Blair fed two separating strands of intellectual and cultural history. Blair's work is part of a lineage of academic research that is situated in themes of justice for Native peoples while following rigorous academic standards. Yet like other educated white women in the Progressive Era, she benefited from state and national laws and policies that dispossessed Native people of their traditional knowledge, cultural expressions, and land, even as she lamented them. Kenton's work can be seen as feeding into a vein of popular representations of Native American history and culture in which white men are the main actors and caricatured Native peoples are acted upon. Both women were doing innovative work in their time: Blair by systematically creating primary-source anthologies that spoke to modern concerns, Kenton by processing the historical sources through a bohemian intellectual understanding of US modernity in which Native Americans had no present role.[50]

A belief in the need to disseminate information, stories, evidence, and data was at the heart of each anthology in the early twentieth century. Songs were framed as yet another piece of cultural evidence that should be generally available. Yet while the narrative sources were clearly meant to educate, inspire research, and entertain, the purpose of the music was obscure. No guidance was given for how to analyze or interpret the songs as meaningful evidence. The silent, inscrutable musical scores circulated amidst surging interest in representing Native Americans in popular culture. There the songs were far from silent: they were sung and danced, treated not as historical evidence but as gendered playthings for white American boys and men.

Pipedreams and playthings: calumet music and Indian lore in popular culture

Scholarship and popular culture met in 1893 Chicago, which hosted both the American Historical Association and the World's Fair. In that year Frederick Jackson Turner presented his paper, "The Significance of the Frontier in American History," at the conference for the American Historical Association. Famously, he proposed that the American frontier was an ever-expanding westward boundary that attracted enter-

[48] Ibid.

[49] Her copyedited manuscript shows several examples of her strengthening the language to emphasize the injustices done to Native peoples. Blair, copyedited manuscript of *The Indian Tribes*, n.p.

[50] For exclusion of Native Americans from white Americans' beliefs about modernity see Deloria, *Indians in Unexpected Places*. Music continues to be an important way for Native American communities to represent multiple understandings of modernity. See Levine and Robinson, *Music and Modernity*.

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prising white settler families with the economic incentive to cultivate vast, supposedly empty wilderness. Turner's idea of the frontier coincided with a trend in American musical composition and poetry toward romanticized representations of the West and Native peoples.[51] Historians attending Turner's talk also visited the World's Fair and Buffalo Bill's Wild West Show, seeing living (quasi-)anthropological and commercial versions of the people whose histories some of them were writing about in the past tense. At the World's Fair, visitors could see calumet pipes displayed in Minnesota's exhibit space alongside hatchets and pipestones.[52] The calumets represented a supposedly bygone era and people. The Wild West Show offered a contrasting vision: robust, virile, allegedly authentic, and, most of all, entertaining skits and tricks in which cowboys and Indians inhabited a thrilling present.[53] Completing the picture of the US past and present was the fairground's spatial layout, in which the US future as a technologically advanced, westward-driven imperialist nation was contrasted with nearby "primitive" cultures.

In this context, the calumet became an especially durable symbol of Indianness. The popularization of the calumet, often colloquially referred to as "the peace pipe," coincided with the electrification of multimedia entertainment, the diversification of commercial formats, the expansion of US imperialism, and the attendant increase in the representation of nonwhite peoples in all manner of vernacular culture.[54] The three calumet songs appeared in various nonacademic publications throughout the twentieth century, targeting diverse audiences from children's literature to cartoons, trade circulars, and newspapers. The varied audiences and implied uses of these songs in popular culture show how the songs were often exploited to perpetuate romanticized and inaccurate portrayals of Native American practices. This was done for white entertainment, particularly with amateur reenactment in redface, while falsely relegating the songs—and Native peoples—to the past. More broadly, Native American songs were conscripted into a new form of educational entertainment that, under the guise of legitimate scholarship, socialized new generations into the US's imperialist racialized regime of power. Under this regime, domination through impersonation was framed as an innocent, fun, and even patriotic activity that aided children's educational, moral, and personal growth. "Indians" were not the miscreants of dime novels but people

[51]Beth E. Levy, *Frontier Figures: American Music and the Mythology of the American West* (Los Angeles and Berkeley, 2012); Michael Pisani, *Imagining Native America in Music* (New Haven, 2005).

[52]Hubert Howe Bancroft, *The Book of the Fair* (Chicago and San Francisco, 1893), 813.

[53]The 1904 St Louis World's Fair, coinciding with the American Library Association's meeting, highlighted the link between "playing Indian," Native American representation, and historical scholarship in popular culture. This event even inspired the American Record Company's label design, based on a claim that phonograph music soothed Native Americans at the fair. Robert W. Rydell, *All the World's a Fair: Visions of Empire at American International Expositions, 1876–1916* (Chicago, 2002); and Sutton, *American Record Company*, 5.

[54]Matthew Frye Jacobson, *Barbarian Virtues: The United States Encounters Foreign Peoples at Home and Abroad, 1876–1917* (New York, 2001).

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whose cultures and traditions were beneficial for "civilized" white Americans to study, then appropriate.[55]

The appropriation of cultural heritage occurred alongside the systematic erasure of Native American cultures through assimilation policies, especially forced boarding-school attendance. These institutions stripped Native children of their language and culture, including by the prohibition of tribal songs. The unconscionable treatment of children at boarding schools is well known today. Forced family separation, not to mention abuse and deaths, wrought horrifying intergenerational consequences. Without rehearsing the litany of traumas, we acknowledge the revolting irony that white children were encouraged to blithely sing and dance to the calumet songs while their Native peers were physically and psychologically punished for the smallest expressions of their cultural identities.[56] Native children were literally silenced while white children performed their songs.

[55]Rouleau argues that adults used children's literature depicting Native Americans to proclaim hegemonic ideas about American imperialism. Brian Rouleau, *Empire's Nursery: Children's Literature and the Origins of the American Century* (New York, 2021).

[56]From 1819 to 1969, the US operated a vast network of boarding schools, including seventy-six federally backed institutions in Oklahoma (present-day Peoria Tribe territory) and Jesuit-run schools in Kansas where Peoria children were sent. Beyond these, over a thousand other institutions, including day schools and orphanages, may have served Native American children. The history of Native American boarding schools is undeniably marked by the horrors of forced assimilation, including the mass removal of children from their families and systematic cultural stripping—all part of what David Wallace Adams aptly termed an "education for extinction." David Wallace Adams, *Education for Extinction: American Indians and the Boarding School Experience, 1875–1928* (Lawrence, 1995), 7. Parallel to this profoundly oppressive environment, these institutions also became sites of Indigenous assertion and resilience. Native educators, such as Angel De Cora (Ho-Chunk) at the Carlisle Indian Industrial School, actively worked within the system to champion Indigenous arts and identity, thereby carving out spaces for cultural expression despite the overarching assimilationist agenda. More broadly, both Native teachers and students often engaged with, ingeniously adapted, and even subverted aspects of the imposed curriculum to serve their own purposes and maintain their sense of self. The critical role of music in this complex dynamic is powerfully illuminated by scholarship such as Melissa Parkhurst's *To Win the Indian Heart: Music at Chemawa Indian School* (Corvallis, OR, 2014). This work details how musical practices at schools like Chemawa, whether through participation in school bands, in choirs, or in informal musical activities, became vital arenas for student agency, cultural negotiation, expressions of identity, and even subtle forms of resistance. Zitkala-Ša (Lakota), who attended White's Indiana Manual Labor Institute in Wabash, Indiana, wrote of finding solace in learning the violin in "The School Days of an Indian Girl" (1900). Such students might also have retained and shared their own musical knowledge in clandestine ways. Acknowledging these intricate narratives of Indigenous agency and adaptation is essential; it does not in any way diminish the overarching violent intent and devastating impact of the boarding-school system, but rather enriches our understanding of the multifaceted ways in which Native peoples confronted, navigated, and survived profound institutionalized oppression. See Bryan Newland, "Federal Indian Boarding School Initiative Investigative Report," May 2022, US Department of the Interior, Indian Affairs, at www.bia.gov/sites/default/files/dup/inline-files/bsi_investigative_report_may_2022_508.pdf (accessed 19 Sept. 2024). Also see Clifford Trafzer, Jean A. Keller, and Lorene Sisquoc, eds., *Boarding School Blues: Revisiting American Indian Educational Experiences* (Lincoln, NE, 2006). Boarding schools stood in for the multiple ways in which US assimilation and dispossession actions and policies traumatized Native communities. See Brenda J. Child, "The Boarding School as Metaphor," *Journal of American Indian Education* 57/1 (2018), 37–57. On music in Canadian residential schools see Beverley Diamond, "The Doubleness of Sound in Canada's Indian Residential Schools," in Victoria Lindsay Levine and Philip V. Bohlman, eds., *This Thing Called Music: Essays in Honor of Bruno Nettl* (New York, 2015), 267–79.

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White children were effectively enlisted into the social reproduction of imperialism through scouting and the consumption of how-to Indian-lore literature.[57] The rise of national scouting organizations resulted in the commercialization of camping for youths, symbolically positing that all children developed from an inherently savage to a civilized state.[58] Along with playing soldier, playing Indian was how white American children came of age. Camps created pretend Native American villages, imagining that white children would learn intuitively through immersion in so-called Native culture and wisdom. The figure of the Indian was thus lauded in a way that other "Others" were not. The murderous racial play-acting scouts enjoyed when they pretended to be cowboys and Indians was thrilling, different from the denigrating racist and xenophobic humor that attended caricatures from slave plantations or newly arrived immigrants onstage.[59]

In a 1925 issue of *Boys' Life*, the official magazine of the Boy Scouts of America, the calumet songs appeared in a column by the long-time editor and Scouts leader, Dan Beard. In "Dan Beard Tells You How," readers found instructions for constructing a canoe and performing the "real Calumet dance," provided in response to requests Beard claimed came from scouts "over and over again." The visual setting of the music is a culturally heterogeneous confusion: the notation is taken from the de la Potherie publication, and the syllables are swapped out for a medley of patriotic pablum, all surrounded by symbols of the scouts and stylized faux-Plains illustrations (a buffalo, a horse, a teepee, a figure with a calumet, and so on) (Figure 10). Male dancers in silhouette decorate the bottom of the song insert, hunched and in motion, one with a rattle, one raising a calumet pipe, all raising their knees high. Beard encouraged boys, "Remember, this is the real, genuine calumet tune, so when you dance it don't forget to bring your knees up high as if you were going upstairs and bring your nose down until it is in danger of being hit by your knees—that will give the real Indian touch to it."[60] This invitation to play Indian assumed that young boys could rely on a wellspring of stereotypical ideas about Native performance, transforming the calumet from a sacred symbol into a collectible badge of white honor.[61]

Many white boys grew up to be men who still enjoyed playing Indian, and how-to guides also gave Boy Scouts and businessmen step-by-step instructions for replicating "Indian ways." Under the umbrellas of Indian lore and woodcraft, the volume of writings like "Dan Beard Tells You How," but aimed at both adults and children, swelled

[57]Rouleau, *Empire's Nursery*, 2, 9.

[58]The early twentieth century saw a surge in organizations with Indigenous themes, including the Woodcraft Indians (1901), Sons of Daniel Boone (1905), Boy Scouts of America (1910), Campfire Girls (1910), and the YMCA's Indian Guides and Indian Princess programs (1926), which persisted into the twenty-first century. Abigail Ayres van Slyck, *A Manufactured Wilderness: Summer Camps and the Shaping of American Youth, 1890–1960* (Minneapolis, 2006).

[59]Formal blackface performances and immigrant impersonations were, unfortunately, incorporated into scouting fund-raising efforts, even though they occurred within the contexts of minstrel shows and Vaudeville-style reviews. See H. H. Smaw, "'Putting On' a Minstrel Show," *Boys' Life* 13/3 (1923), 37. Also see Rhae Lynn Barnes, *Darkology: When the American Dream Wore Blackface* (New York, 2026).

[60]Dan Beard, "Dan Beard Tells You How," *Boys' Life* 15/4 (1925), 14, 36, at 36.

[61]Benjamin Rene Jordan, *Modern Manhood and the Boy Scouts of America Citizenship, Race, and the Environment, 1910–1930* (Chapel Hill, 2016). Swastikas were common in scouting visual lexicon.

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14 BOYS' LIFE

Dan Beard Tells You How—

To Ride a Heifer—To Build a Desperate Ambrose—To Dance the Calumet

Illustrated by the Author

"OH SAY! what's the use of walking home?"

"Why?" answered my cousin Bob—a practical farmer's boy—"we have got to get these cows home from the pasture, and it spoils a milk cow to run her, so we will have to walk."

"Shucks! that isn't what I mean. Why not ride home?"

"Ride what? Ride a rail?"

"Oh no, you boob! Ride the cows, of course," I replied. Bob stopped short in his tracks, gave me a quick look, and the old nick was dancing in his eyes. If I had been wise I would have taken warning from his expression, but I was not wise, I was rash.

"Alright!" he at length replied. "You take the white heifer and I'll take the brindle cow."

No sooner said than done. To our surprise we found very little difficulty in mounting our steeds, and the old brindle cow seemed too much surprised to do anything; but that white heifer! Glory be! It was my first and only experience in bull-dogging, and how I stayed on that blatting bunch of nerves I do not know to this day; but I did hang on like grim death, and I remember how very sharp was the white heifer's backbone.

This was in the days before we ever heard anything of cowboys, and rodeos were yet to come. But I always *was a pioneer* and I reckon that day I blazed the way for the coming cowboys, rodeos, bull-dogging and all that sort of thing. Without schooling of any kind that white heifer was highly educated in the art of bucking, sunfishing and doing all the fancy steps so well known by the outlaw bronchos of the range; but for some reason which I cannot fathom I did not roll off or fall off that white fiend.

Suddenly the heifer changed her tactics and started on a dead run for the pasture bars. I had no bridle, bit or rope. Whoopee! there was no way for me to stop the beast and my cousin Bob acted shamefully. He seemed to think that the heifer and I were doing this solely to amuse him; he made no offer to help me but sat there on the stupid old brindle cow, which had not yet recovered from its astonishment and the novelty of being mounted. I saw nothing to laugh at, I was in a serious predicament, and I was wondering how I was going to stay on the heifer's back when she jumped the bars. I now know that I was doing some wonderful riding.

Away we went, the young heifer with her tail up and her nose to the wind. She reached the bars and there she stopped, but I did not. I instinctively grasped her by her horns to save myself, but this only caused the front part of me

put over? You can't fool me. You didn't do that on purpose!"

"Shucks!" I replied, "that's the way I always dismount from a cow—but you talk the way people always talk when a fellow does a real star stunt like mine."

BUT from that day till this I have never been able to convince Bob that that was my usual way of dismounting. The trouble lies in the fact that I have never been quite able to convince myself, and I hesitate to prove it by trying the act over again. I wish I could think that that whole thing was planned and that I did it on purpose, but I cannot rid myself of the doubt that lurks in Bob's mind. Yet, although it possibly was involuntary, my chest still swells with pride when I think of that wonderful, skillful and graceful hand-spring over the pasture bars.

What's all this got to do with building a canoe? Well, this canoe is supposed to be painted white and while it does not look like a cow or a four-legged animal of any kind, it suddenly brought the memory of the white heifer to my mind. Now let's forget about the pasture and get to work.

Boys are constantly writing in to me asking for diagrams of a canoe. In Boys' Life and in various books of mine I have told you how to build birch-bark canoes, canvas canoes and wooden canoes, but I am going to give you one this time that a twelve-year-old scout can lift—that is, if he is a husky twelve-year-old boy—and a man can almost pick it up, put it on his head and wear it as a hat.

This canoe is very wide and consequently there is little danger of it upsetting. It can be used as a rowboat, a canoe or a mast may be stepped in, and then it is a sail boat. It is about as safe a boat as I know of, yet we call it "the desperate Ambrose!" And it may be that its name in connection with its color touched the button that opened my memory book at the white-heifer page.

Fig. 1 shows the diagram of a side view. Fig. 2, the front view. Fig. 3, looking down on the deck. Fig. 4, looking down on the bottom. Fig. 5, the side pieces fastened together with boy adjusting the middle stretcher. Fig. 6, a temporary brace to hold the boards in position. Fig. 7, the ends of the side boards, B showing how they are bevelled to make a neat joint. Fig. E is the triangular-shaped stem pieces. Fig. 8, the center brace. Fig. 9, placing the bottom on the boat. Fig. 10, showing how the braces are adjusted. Fig. 11, the bow and stern braces. S S, Fig. 3, rowlocks.

You will need three strips, Fig. 3, L, M, and N, two of them (L and N) 1½ inches wide and ½ inch thick and little over 4½ feet long. These strips are to be fastened lengthwise on the flooring on the inside of the boat. The middle piece (M, Fig. 3), which fits in the center over the keel, is 3 inches wide and ½ inch thick. The flooring for the bottom is composed of boards ⅜ of an inch thick and 3 inches wide. Don't use *tongue and grooved*, it will warp up in ridges. The deck planks are about the same thickness as the bottom ones.

You will also need a couple of strips of moulding for the gunnels, 7/8 of an inch wide and ¼ of an inch thick, T, Fig. 3. There are three keel cleats for the bottom of the boat; two of them, H and H, Fig. 4, are 4 feet 6 inches long, ⅜ of an inch thick and 1⅜ inches wide. The middle piece or real keel K, Fig. 4, is ⅜ of an inch wide and 7/8 of an inch thick and 7 feet 5 inches long. Now, then, you must have two side pieces. Of course, these must be longer than the

Figure 10. Calumet songs in Dan Beard, "Dan Beard Tells You How," *Boys' Life* 15/4 (1925), 14, 36, at 14. Public domain.

between the 1890s and the 1950s.[62] Authored primarily by white men and white couples who had lived among tribes and studied with anthropologists at institutions like the Natural History Museum in New York City, these guides brought bohemian intellectual culture into the middle-class mainstream in the form of publications and lectures on "Indian lore." Authors often engaged in redface performances as well, at once stereotyping Native Americans while citing direct experience and others' academic work to authenticate their performances.[63]

Julian Harris Salomon (1896–1987) was pivotal in promoting an idealized approach to the American outdoors that appropriated Native American cultures for white

[62]Deirdre Marisa Kwiatek, "Playing Indian: A Consideration of Children's Books by Native North Americans, 1900–1940" (Ph.D. dissertation, University of Toronto, 1998).

[63]Clyde Ellis, "'More Real than the Indians Themselves': The Early Years of the Indian Lore Movement in the United States," *Montana: The Magazine of Western History* 58/3 (2008), 5. On the white entertainers trying to get cultural certification and authentication by "studying" Native American people see Caitlin Marshall, "A Voice like Thunder: Edwin Forrest's Sonic Redface," in "Early American Music and the Construction of Race: A Colloquy," convened by Rhae Lynn Barnes and Glenda Goodman, *Journal of the American Musicological Society* 74/3 (2021), 623–31.

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consumption. At his career's peak, he was a highly sought-after camp designer, architect, ethnologist, consultant, and scouting executive with the American Camping Association. He shaped scouting culture for generations and even created the blueprint for Camp David, the retreat used by US presidents.[64] Salomon collaborated with scouting masters Ernest Thompson Seton and Dan Beard, who used his and other published sources to create the social movement that was scouting.[65] But first, he was a Boy Scout in Brooklyn starting in 1910 and an Eagle Scout in 1913. He served in the army during World War I. Following a visit to the Blackfoot Reservation in the early 1920s, Salomon published a book detailing how to incorporate Native American traditions into white classrooms and scouting programs.[66] Salomon claimed that the declining Blackfoot chief, Curley Bear, implored him to preserve his culture for future generations of white children. Regardless of the likelihood that a tribal leader would be concerned about white children in particular, Salomon addressed that young audience in his resulting book.[67]

Salomon's book condenses diverse Native American cultures into an easily digestible form that could be taken up by youth and adult scouting aficionados. Although *The Book of Indian Crafts and Lore* does not include the notated songs featured in this article, it demonstrates how the idea of disseminating calumet and other tribal songs through printed music notation took hold in mainstream culture. The chapter on "Dance Steps and Music" includes thirty-five songs and instrumental pieces in music notation.[68] Salomon explained how to perform some of the "easy" dance steps and included both a discography and a list of Indian-themed instrumental music, noting, "The latter will be found helpful in large pageants, where a band or orchestra is used to create atmosphere, or to supplement Indian instruments and singing."[69] *The Book of Indian Crafts and Lore* was meant to be the starting point for consumers who wanted to pursue their Indianist interests further through sound recordings, musical scores, and their own re-creations. *The Book of Indian Crafts and Lore* secured Salomon's place on an active lecture and workshop circuit internationally and on radio and television, helping to disseminate Native American songs and dances further. In those appearances, he would perform for large audiences, "donning part of his notable

[64]Salomon claimed to have developed at least a thousand different campsites in the United States by the 1950s. See Van Slyck, *A Manufactured Wilderness*, xxix; and Lorri Ballance, Julian Harris Salomon obituary, *The Record*, 11 Sept. 1987, obituary page.

[65]On Seton's influence on Salomon see Hallie E. Bond, Joan Jacobs Brumberg, and Leslie Paris, *"A Paradise for Boys and Girls": Children's Camps in the Adirondacks* (Syracuse, 2006), 25.

[66]The exact date of this visit is unknown; Salomon doesn't say in *The Book of Indian Crafts*, and James W. Schultz mentions Salomon's visit in his book *Friends of My Life as an Indian* (Boston, 1923), 148. Salomon served as a private in World War I and was wounded, and returned home in May 1919, so he would have been in Montana sometime between then and 1923.

[67]Julian Harris Salomon, *The Book of Indian Crafts and Indian Lore* (New York and London, 1928). He also tried his hand at regional history writing in *Indians of the Lower Hudson Region: The Munsee* (New York, 1982).

[68]Salomon, *The Book of Indian Crafts*, 297–327.

[69]Ibid., 288, 328. The phonograph records he lists are exclusively from Victor and Columbia, with no representation from American Record Company.

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collection of Indian costumes" and going by the names "Apota" ("the Firemaker") or "Soaring Eagle." He made portions of the calumet ceremony a regular part of his show (Figure 11).[70]

Amid the proliferation of "Indian lore" literature and how-to guides by white authors in the early twentieth century, a significant counternarrative began to emerge from prominent Native American intellectuals and writers. These individuals were often educated and trained within white institutions, colleges, and boarding schools, giving them a critical vantage point on the prevailing, often romanticized or inaccurate, portrayals of their cultures. Witnessing this trend, they began to publish their own books, which garnered considerable acclaim and aimed to offer more authoritative perspectives. Among these influential figures were Charles A. Eastman (Ohiyesa), a Dakota physician, whose works included *Indian Scout Talks: A Guide for Boy Scouts and Camp Fire Girls* (1914), and Arthur Caswell Parker, a Seneca historian and archaeologist, who published *The Indian How Book* (1927). While these Native authors sought to correct misrepresentations and assert their authority on matters of their own heritage, their position and output were inherently complex. In the process of making Native American customs accessible, particularly to younger, non-Native audiences, their work sometimes involved the simplification of intricate cultural expressions like music and dances.

There was a complex give-and-take between Native and white writers, who each used the other for credentialization. In an effort to legitimize their cultural studies within the dominant academic frameworks of the time, Parker and Eastman cited or built upon the work of white scholars, navigating a fine line as they tried to be more authoritative while also making compromises inherent in cross-cultural representation and commercial publication. Francis La Flesche, Omaha ethnologist and specialist in Omaha and Osage cultures, collaborated on research with Alice Cunningham Fletcher under the auspices of the Smithsonian's Bureau of American Ethnology. Salomon, in turn, cited Fletcher and La Flesche in his own work. Ernest Thompson Seton, cofounder of Boy Scouts, also cited Fletcher and La Flesche in his *The Gospel of the Redman: An Indian Bible* (coauthored with his wife Julia). White Indian loreists also sought legitimization from other white academics and institutions. Salomon thanked the academic repositories that supported his research and provided primary sources and illustrations, including the American Museum of Natural History, the Smithsonian Institution, and the Bureau of American Ethnology.[71] Even Dan Beard, in *Boys' Life*, provides a primary-source citation. He mistakenly attributed the songs to the wrong seventeenth-century French source, citing Nicolas Perrot instead of Jacques Marquette.

[70]"Indian Chieftain Invokes Rain Gods by Song and Dance," *Reading Times*, 25 June 1927, 13. Other performer–authors included James W. Schultz (who used the Indian name Apikuni and published a book entitled *Friends of My Life as an Indian* in 1923), William McClintock, and George Bird Grinnell, who is recognized as one of America's leading buffalo advocates. See Michael Punke, *Last Stand: George Bird Grinnell, the Battle to Save the Buffalo, and the Birth of the New West* (Lincoln, NE, 2000), 9.

[71]Salomon, *The Book of Indian Crafts*, xvi, xv, lists scholars who read drafts and thanks the Bureau of American Ethnology, the Smithsonian Institution, the American Museum of Natural History, the Museum of the American Indian, the Heye Foundation, the Peabody Museum, the Field Museum of Natural History, the University of California, and the Canadian National Museum.

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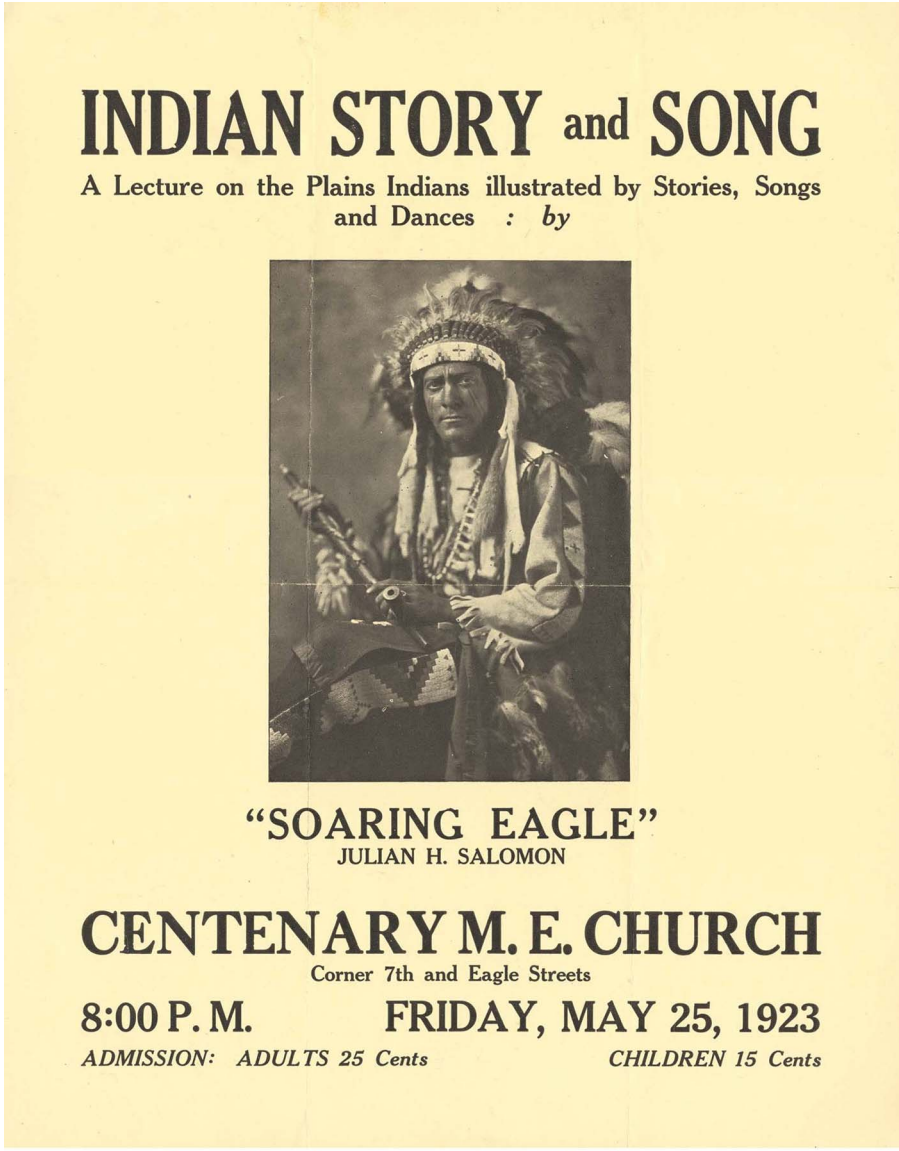


Figure 11. Poster for Julian Harris Salomon lecture, 1923. Redpath Chautauqua Collection, Special Collections, University of Iowa Libraries.

Perrot, however, is the explorer into whose narrative Emma Helen Blair inserted the calumet songs in her 1911 publication; it is likely that Beard consulted Blair's work on *The Jesuit Relations*. These authors' use of citation serves to highlight how important they thought authenticity was to their manifold projects of publication, recirculation, and appropriation.

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As the songs appeared in more publications, not only could more people access the music, but citation reinforced the idea that songs were citable primary sources—and that citation was important. Thus we find citations in what may seem like unlikely places. A 1921 weekly edition of *Chicago Commerce*, published by the Chicago Association of Commerce and Industry, credited Jacques Marquette when including the lyrics as part of a Chicago Festival Play detailing the city's history up to the Great Fire of 1871.[72] Citational practice reflected changing politics. The monthly newspaper *Indian Trader*, published by Native journalists in La Mesa, California and Billings, Montana, wrote about the songs in a June 1971 article called "The Calumet." The article, which does not include the notated music, interprets the Jesuit sources as confirming a narrative of Native cultural continuity, claiming that "eighteenth-century writings note that long before the arrival of the white man, the calumet was a significant and respected part of the daily lives of the American Indian." Rather than place the authority in the Jesuit sources, the article explains the history and use of calumets along with a detailed description of ceremonies, dances, or "ballets," calling on examples from Jesuit writings but denoting, point by point, elements deemed "mysterious" by the missionaries.[73] Claiming the authority to explain the meaning of these frequently reproduced sources speaks both to the significance of access to the songs and to the mutability of the uses to which access is put.

The paradox of access

What does all this access bring? The three songs' reconfiguration from ritual practices to printed historical artifacts and, eventually, to tools of cultural appropriation highlights the complexities and ethical challenges inherent in studying and representing Indigenous peoples' cultures. Reexamining the intellectual history of Native American music through the previously uncredited role of figures like Emma Blair and Edna Kenton in circulating calumet songs offers critical new perspectives on the labor that provides access to sources. Their contributions underscore a broader pattern: the marginalization of women's work in this field at the turn of the twentieth century, which has typically only acknowledged ethnographers such as Alice Fletcher, Frances Densmore, and Natalie Curtis. Furthermore, women exerted a substantial, yet little-known, impact on the popularization of Native music itself. This influence was often obscured, partly because the visible phenomenon of "playing Indian" belonged predominantly to men and boys within organizations like the Woodcraft Indians and the Boy Scouts of America. Bringing to light the specific efforts of Blair and Kenton thus not only corrects the historical record but also significantly expands and enriches understanding of a foundational era in music scholarship. Indeed, such detailed explorations of overlooked individuals are vital for interdisciplinary approaches, offering crucial

[72]The play's notes indicate that "characters sing the Calumet Songs of the Illinois" during an interlude. "Book of the Chicago Festival Play," *Chicago Commerce*, 1 Oct. 1921, 18, lyrics only. The songs also appeared in other Midwest outlets in this period: E. J. Briggs, "The Rising Sun," *The Palimpsest* 12/3 (1931), 76; and Irving Berdine Richman, *Ioway to Iowa: The Genesis of a Corn and Bible Commonwealth* (Iowa City, 1931), 26.

[73]"The Calumet," *Indian Trader*, June 1971, 19, 23.

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case studies that challenge established narratives and deepen the comprehension of cultural history in academic inquiry.

The increasing accessibility of primary sources through the intellectual labor of women like Emma Helen Blair and Edna Kenton had unintended consequences. Their work facilitated the appropriation and misrepresentation of Native American culture. As historians, anthropologists, and ethnomusicologists adopted academic research methods, methods that included careful citation, the three notated songs were reproduced at will and silently shifted to the public domain.[74] Moreover, for all that the songs were part of a tremendous effort in the early twentieth century to make primary sources more available, the songs' appearance in printed compendiums fed the myth of the vanishing Indian.[75] At the same time, as they came to belong to white children and be used for white education and entertainment, they were expropriated from Native American holders of traditional knowledge. In their published forms, the songs came to be seen as freely available for mass use, part of the stream of derivative vernacular entertainment flooding the United States stages, pages, and screens. Such treatment of the songs recreates the logic of "white possessiveness" that Indigenous and cultural-studies scholar Aileen Moreton-Robinson dissects in the context of Australia.[76] The idea that white people can and do rationalize owning *everything*, from land to books to songs, undergirded the treatment of these songs. Thus claimed, they were exploited to reproduce whiteness and white authority.

The songs continue to circulate in scholarship.[77] They can be found by scanning notated music in Google Books and HathiTrust. They made it through the digital turn in American history. Throughout the second half of the twentieth century, they were absorbed into state history textbooks in Illinois and now are on the official Illinois State

[74]To our knowledge, copyright protection wasn't sought for the individual songs themselves. Instead, these songs would have been copyrighted as part of the larger publications in which they were included. Since they weren't distributed as sheet music, the copyright laws and licensing agreements relevant to that format (and later extended to piano rolls, phonographs, live performances, radio, and films) didn't pertain to them.

[75]These publications include Fletcher's book detailing the calumet ceremony: Alice Cunningham Fletcher and James Rolfe Murie, *The Hako: Song, Pipe, and Unity in a Pawnee Calumet Ceremony* (Lincoln, NE, 1996). The effort to preserve so-called vanishing cultures is essential to the salvage anthropology mandate, but also undergirded antiquarian interests and local-history advocates in the nineteenth century. See Lindsay DiCuirci, *Colonial Revivals: The Nineteenth-Century Lives of Early American Books* (Philadelphia, 2019); and Jean M. O'Brien, *Firsting and Lasting: Writing Indians Out of Existence in New England* (Minneapolis, 2010). Recent scholarship on how American history is written (and taught) in such a way as to exclude or center Native history include Christine DeLucia, "The Vanishing Indians of 'These Truths'," *Los Angeles Review of Books*, 10 Jan. 2019, at https://lareviewofbooks.org/article/the-vanishing-indians-of-these-truths. Also see Ned Blackhawk, *The Rediscovery of America: Native Peoples and the Unmaking of U.S. History* (New Haven, 2023).

[76]Aileen Moreton-Robinson, *The White Possessive: Property, Power, and Indigenous Sovereignty* (Minneapolis and London, 2015).

[77]Scholars include them as evidence of the role of music and dance in intercultural encounters, as part of dance history, and in bibliographical efforts to identify Native American musical sources in colonial documents. See Stevenson, "Written Sources," 18–21; Kate van Winkle Keller, *Dance and Its Music in America, 1528–1789* (Hillsdale, NY, 2007), 57; Levine, *Writing American Indian Music*, 7–8; and Daniel Robert Laxer, *Listening to the Fur Trade: Soundways and Music in the British North American Fur Trade, 1760–1840* (Montreal, 2022).

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History website.[78] The website attributes the songs to Jacques Marquette and provides a footnote to the Wisconsin edition. The notation is paired with a brief cultural history of Peoria and Illinois, along with small book icons (Figure 12).[79] This digital realization of the score clearly aims to make the notated music more accessible (particularly to those who are not music-literate). Like prior attempts at making the sources accessible, the result further alienates the songs from their ceremonial context. The digital signals plod through the melody and wordlessly turn the vocal songs into instrumental pieces. It is digitally deracinated and decontextualized, the opposite of redface, but still a misrepresentation.

We acknowledge that this article also recirculates the songs. We did so to establish that notated music sources, created in the context of colonial intercultural encounters and perhaps without the knowledge or permission of tribes, were disseminated widely, and that once published and reprinted as primary sources in the twentieth century, the songs were absorbed into academic scholarship. The transfer of the songs between academic and popular publications not only shows the porousness of the boundaries between those domains. It also shows how printed music notation possessed widespread visual appeal that had little to do with its aural attributes and ceremonial meanings. As a technology, printed music notation allowed for the excerptability of the songs. A question to conclude with, then, is how to cultivate a respectful approach to access that neither essentializes nor overlooks the communities who have devised, performed, and transmitted these songs and could continue to do so.[80]

Access is not unequivocally good. As archivists, librarians, and scholars now argue, when it comes to Indigenous materials that have often been acquired through coercive or unsanctioned means, providing unfettered viewing and listening can betray tribal interests and protocols.[81] Increasingly in the twentieth and twenty-first centuries, the presumed universal good of freely circulating information is called into question, its underpinnings in liberalism at odds with Indigenous social values that emphasize relationality and reciprocity. Discussions about access now consider Native communities first and foremost; outsider scholars and the general public's access are not the primary

[78]"The Illinois Art and Music," MuseumLink Illinois, at https://www.museum.state.il.us/muslink/nat_amer/post/htmls/am_music.html (accessed 19 Sept. 2024).

[79]Clicking the digital book icons allows users to download and open a basic MIDI file rendition of the songs. This electronic version, using a digital "flute" sound (from Windows Media Player or GarageBand), provides a simple playback of the notes, with the GarageBand version offering further editing capabilities.

[80]See scholarship on methodology and approaches, particularly community-grounded research: Chris Andersen and Jean M. O'Brien, eds., *Sources and Methods in Indigenous Studies* (London, 2016); Alyssa M. T. Pleasant, Caroline Wigginton, and Kelly Wisecup, "Materials and Methods in Native American and Indigenous Studies: Completing the Turn," *William and Mary Quarterly* 75/2 (2018), 207–36.

[81]On the moral and ethical questions about access see Kay Mathiesen, "A Defense of Native Americans' Rights over Traditional Cultural Expressions," *American Archivist* 75/2 (2012), 456–81; Lara K. Aase, "Censorship or Stewardship? Strategies for Managing Biased Publications and Indigenous Traditional Knowledge in Special Collections Libraries," in Mary Kandiuk, ed., *Archives and Special Collections as Sites of Contestation* (Sacramento, 2020), 7–36. As Aase notes, this moral position about limiting access was not widely accepted by archivists and librarians until relatively recently: the Protocols for Native American Archival Materials were initially rejected, and then accepted by the Society of American Archivists in 2018. Ibid., 12.

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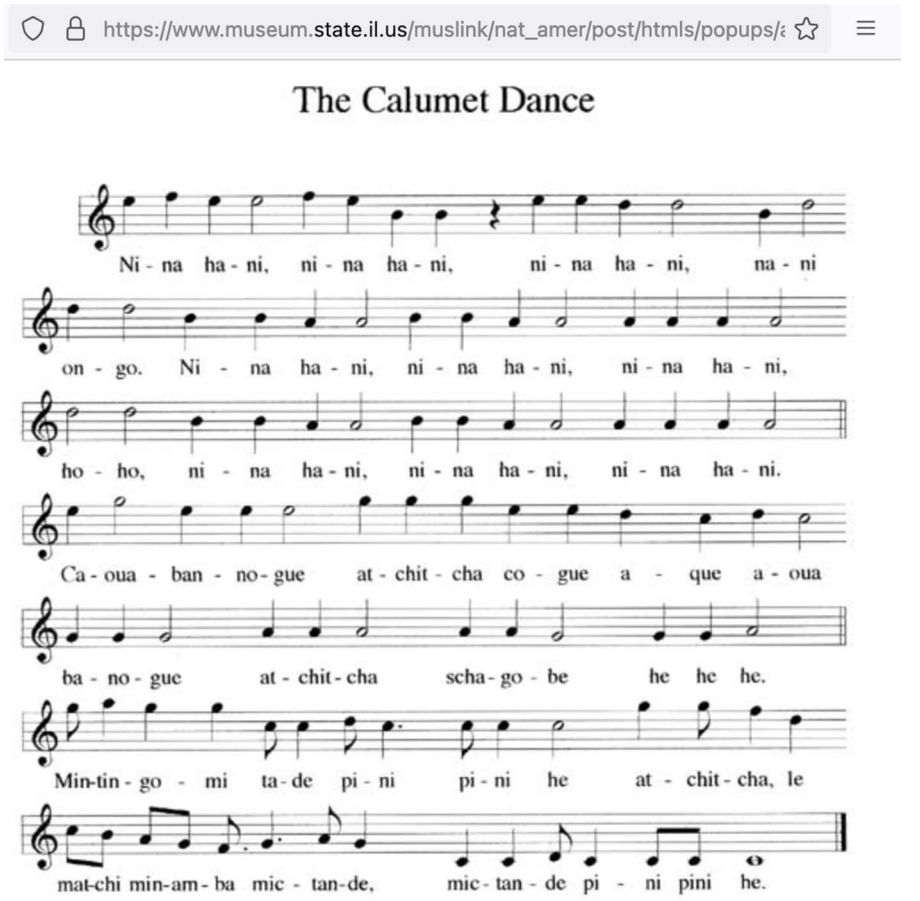


Figure 12. Screenshot of the Calumet songs on the Illinois State History website.

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interest.[82] Relatedly, recent work calls for repatriation as an ethical and moral next step for materials that were collected by early ethnographers, including photography and sound recordings.[83] This process is always complex. In the case of the three songs considered here, transcribed hundreds of years ago and severed from their home community, there is no clear path for repatriation or even a consensus on to whom they rightfully belong. Ideally, these and other notated musical sources can help present-day tribes identify and reunite with historical songs from which they were violently severed.

[82]On tribal community access see Kimberly Christen, "Does Information Really Want to Be Free? Indigenous Knowledge and the Politics of Open Access," *International Journal of Communication* 6 (2012), 2870–93; Jennifer O'Neal, "'The Right to Know': Decolonizing Native American Archives," *Journal of Western Archives* 6/1 (2015), 1–17; Loriene Roy, Anjali Bhasin, and Sarah K. Arriaga, eds., *Tribal Libraries, Archives, and Museums: Preserving Our Language, Memory, and Lifeways* (Lanham, MD, 2011). A list of tribal libraries and archives can be found in Elizabeth Peterson, *Tribal Libraries in the United States: A Directory of American Indian and Alaska Native Facilities* (Jefferson, NC, 2007).

[83]Robin Gray, "Repatriation and Decolonization: Thoughts on Ownership, Access, and Control," in Frank Gunderson, Robert C. Lancefield, and Bret Woods, eds., *The Oxford Handbook of Musical Repatriation* (New York and Oxford, 2019), 723–38; Trevor Reed, "Reclaiming Ownership of the Indigenous Voice: The Hopi Music Repatriation Project," in ibid., 627–53; Aaron Fox, "Repatriation as Reanimation through Reciprocity," in Philip Vilas Bohlman, ed., *The Cambridge History of World Music* (New York and Cambridge, 2014), 522–54; and Kimberly Christen, "Opening Archives: Respectful Repatriation," *American Archivist* 74/1 (2011), 185–210.

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